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Public service motivation and organizational citizenship behavior in Korea

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Abstract

Purpose – The main theme is to investigate whether the distinct classes of organizational citizenship behavior (OCB) such as altruism and generalized compliance are shown in the Korean context, and whether public service motivation, job satisfaction and organizational commitment are predictors of OCB in Korean civil servants.

Design/methodology/approach – Structural equation modeling (SEM) is applied to survey data of 1,584 civil servants in Korea to examine the relationships between the three predictors and the two dimensions of OCB.

Findings – The results indicate the presence of the two dimensions of OCB in the Korean context, and support the relationships between public service motivation and OCB and the relationship between organizational commitment and OCB. However, the direct relationship between job satisfaction and OCB is not confirmed.

Originality/value – This paper is the first to analyze the effect of public service motivation on OCB, and shows that public service motivation emerges as a more significant predictor of OCB in the public sector of Korea. It contributes to enhancing the applicability and meaningfulness of the concept of OCB across different cultures.

Keywords Public sector organizations, Organizational behaviour, Job satisfaction, Korea

Paper type Research paper

Introduction

It is generally believed that public employees are motivated by a sense of service not found among private employees (Houston, 2000; Perry and Wise, 1990). Public employees in government organizations are seen as motivated by a concern for the community and a desire to serve the public interest, and are more likely to be characterized by an ethic that prioritizes intrinsic rewards over extrinsic rewards (Crewson, 1997). The concept of public service motivation is used for explaining the difference between public and private employees (Perry and Wise, 1990). We can guess that public employees will place a high value on pro-social job behavior such as organizational citizenship behavior (OCB). However, there are few studies to examine the effect of public service motivation on the OCB of public employees.

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OCB is viewed widely as contributing to an organization's overall effectiveness (Organ, 1988, 1997; Podsakoff *et al.*, 2000). OCB derives its practical importance from the premise that it represents contributions that do not inhere in formal role obligations. OCB represents behavior above and beyond those formally prescribed by an organizational role, is discretionary in nature, is not directly or explicitly rewarded within the context of the organization's formal reward structure, and is important for the effective and successful functioning of an organization.

Over two decades OCB has been studied theoretically and empirically in various fields, and the antecedents and consequences of OCB have been analyzed (Podsakoff *et al.*, 2000). However, what has not been studied as extensively is the applicability of OCB in other cultures (Paine and Organ, 2000). It is conceivable that national culture might influence the effects of established antecedents of OCB as found in North American studies (Farh *et al.*, 1997; Hui *et al.*, 2004).

Korea and the USA represent substantially different cultures. According to Hofstede (1991), Korea is categorized as a collectivistic and feminine society, with a high level of power distance and uncertainty avoidance, while the USA is viewed as an individualistic and masculine society, with a low level of power distance and uncertainty avoidance. It is not confirmed whether the likelihood of employees demonstrating OCB, and the forms of OCB observed in organizations and the strengths of the relationships between OCB and its antecedents in Korea, are analogous to those found in US studies.

There is substantial support for the relationship between job satisfaction and OCB, and between organizational commitment and OCB (Bolon, 1997; Moorman, 1993; Murphy *et al.*, 2002; Organ and Ryan, 1995; Schappe, 1998). However, in the public sector, public service motivation might be more predictive of OCB than either job satisfaction or organizational commitment. The relationship between public service motivation and OCB in public employees has not been investigated yet.

Thus the research questions in the present study are: Are the distinct classes of OCB such as altruism and generalized compliance (Smith *et al.*, 1983) shown in public employees in Korea? Are job satisfaction and organizational commitment the antecedents of OCB in the Korean context? Is public service motivation a predictor of OCB? The public employees in Korea were invited to answer these questions.

Cultural context in Korea

Korea has traditionally had the strong characteristics of a career civil service system. The civil service in Korea is divided into national and local civil service. Civil servants are appointed by their respective governmental bodies, and are regulated by the national or local statutes accordingly. The local government, however, follows the general framework of the national civil service system, which is broadly classified into career and non-career service depending on the terms of employment, job classification, and legal status. Career civil servants are employed based on qualifications and performance requirements, and are expected to make a life-long commitment to the service. Their legal status and job security are guaranteed by law.

Among the four dimensions identified by Hofstede (1991), collectivism and femininity may be helpful to explain OCB of public employees in Korea (Kim, 2005). Individualism-collectivism is the extent to which identity derives from the self versus the collective. Individualism is defined as the extent to which the ties between individuals

in a society are loose, so that individuals are expected to look out for themselves and their immediate families. Collectivism is defined as the extent to which people in a society from birth onward are integrated into strong, cohesive in-groups, which protect people throughout their lifetimes in exchange for unquestioning loyalty. Some of the general value differences between individualistic and collectivistic societies are individual regulation vs. in-group regulation; self-sufficiency vs. interdependence; personal fate vs. shared fate; person as center of psychological field vs. the group as the center; and "I" orientation vs. "we" orientation (Riordan and Vandenberg, 1994).

Korean employees have a strong "we-spirit," which means that:

- they consider their organization as a big family, their boss as a father or big brother, their co-workers as brothers and sisters, and their subordinates as sons and daughters;
- they usually use the words "our organization" and "our department";
- they emphasize interdependence and cooperation rather than competition; and
- they help each other to achieve "our goals."

They think that they have the two kinds of family: home and office. This kind of culture is also related to the Confucian emphasis on hierarchical relationships and mutual aid (Kim, 1991).

In organizations, individualism is manifested as autonomy, individual responsibility for results, and individual-level rewards. Collective management practices emphasize work unit solidarity and team-based rewards (Newman and Nollen, 1996). A collectivist would greatly value membership in a group and would look out for the wellbeing of the group at the expense of his or her own personal interests (Moorman and Blakely, 1995). Collectivist culture may encourage behavior that benefits the organization or the in-group (Paine and Organ, 2000).

Feminine societies stress on equality, solidarity, and quality of work life, while masculine societies emphasize equity, competition among colleagues, and performance (Hofstede, 1991). Masculine cultures value achievement and abhor failure, whereas feminine cultures value affiliation and view failure as much less important. In the workplace, this dimension is reflected in merit-based opportunities for high earnings, recognition, advancement, and rewards (Newman and Nollen, 1996). In Korea, people think that the quality of interpersonal relations is more important than work performance in organizational life, and helping co-workers and inferiors is more importantly recognized in social relations than is achieving better performance. This tendency is related to the harmony-oriented Korean culture. Most Korean managers are more inclined to maintain harmony by producing lenient appraisals of subordinates than to arouse conflict and tension through critical or negative appraisals (Kim, 2005).

We can expect that because collectivistic and feminine culture prevails in Korea, Korean employees would be more likely to show greater levels of OCB, while the highly individualistic orientation and strong need for achievement in the USA might inhibit OCB (Moorman and Blakely, 1995; Paine and Organ, 2000). Historical and traditional practices embedded in national culture may have bred organizations with unique behavior patterns, group dynamics, and structures (Paine and Organ, 2000). The applicability and meaningfulness of the concept of OCB across other cultures need to be considered.

Organizational citizenship behavior

OCB is defined as “individual behavior that is discretionary, not directly or explicitly recognized by the formal reward system, and that in the aggregate promotes the effective functioning of the organization” (Organ, 1988, p. 4). OCB provides a means of managing the interdependencies among members of a work unit, which increases the collective outcomes achieved; reduces the need for an organization to devote scarce resources to simple maintenance functions, which frees up resources for productivity; and improves the ability of others to perform their jobs by freeing up time for more efficient planning, scheduling, problem solving, and so on (Organ, 1988; Organ and Konovsky, 1989; Podsakoff *et al.*, 2000).

Smith *et al.* (1983) used 16 items for measuring OCB, which consists of two fairly interpretable and distinct factors – altruism and generalized compliance. Altruism is defined as helping co-workers personally, such as assisting a co-worker to lift a heavy load. Generalized compliance is impersonal helpful behavior, such as being on time and not wasting time on the job.

Organ (1988) proposed five categories of OCB. Conscientiousness means that employees carry out in-role behaviors well beyond the minimum required levels. Altruism implies that they give help to others. Civic virtue suggests that employees responsibly participate in the political life of the organization. Sportsmanship indicates that people do not complain, but have positive attitudes. Courtesy means that they treat others with respect.

With the growing interest in OCB, the OCB constructs have been expanded and diversified, and the related concepts have been discussed. Almost 30 potentially different forms of OCB have been identified, and extra-role behavior, prosocial organizational behaviors, organizational spontaneity, and contextual performance have been studied during the past years (Podsakoff *et al.*, 2000). Borman and Motowidlo (1993) enumerated five categories of contextual performance: volunteering for activities beyond a person's formal job expectations, persistence of enthusiasm, assisting others, following rules and procedures, and openly espousing and defending organization objectives. These categories sound much like OCB in the form of altruism, compliance, sportsmanship, courtesy, and civic virtue (Organ, 1997). Podsakoff *et al.* (2000) organized the different constructs of OCB into seven common dimensions: helping behavior, sportsmanship, organizational loyalty, organizational compliance, individual initiative, civic virtue, and self-development.

It has been argued that organizational citizenship behaviors facilitate organizational performance by lubricating the social machinery of organizations (Smith *et al.*, 1983). Organ (1988) suggested that OCB as an indicator of job performance which measures not only the degree to which an employee reached a work requirement, but also spontaneous and innovative behavior. However, in contrast to the numerous studies exploring the antecedents of OCB, in relatively few studies have scholars investigated the relationship between citizenship behavior and organizational performance (Bolino *et al.*, 2002). Nevertheless, the available empirical research clearly supports that OCB is related to organizational performance (Podsakoff *et al.*, 2000).

The most frequently investigated correlates of OCB have been job satisfaction (Bateman and Organ, 1983; Moorman, 1993; Organ and Lingl, 1995; Puffer, 1987) and organizational commitment (Schappe, 1998; Williams and Anderson, 1991). In addition, several variables such as interpersonal trust (Podsakoff *et al.*, 1990), organizational

Antecedents of organizational citizenship behavior*Public service motivation*

Perry and Wise (1990, p. 368) defined public service motivation as “an individual’s predisposition to respond to motives grounded primarily or uniquely in public institutions and organizations”. Public service motivation can be characterized as a reliance on intrinsic rewards over extrinsic rewards. Intrinsic rewards are derived from the satisfaction an individual receives from performing a task. Public sector employees place a higher value on helping others, serving society and the public interest, and performing work that is worthwhile to society (Crewson, 1997; Houston, 2000).

Perry and Wise (1990) identified three bases of public service motivation: rational, norm-based, and affective. Rational motives are grounded in individual utility maximization, norm-based motives are grounded in a desire to pursue the common good and further the public interest, and affective motives are grounded in human emotion. A variety of rational, norm-based, and affective motives appear to be primarily or exclusively associated with public service. Rational motives are participation in the process of policy formulation, commitment to a public program because of personal identification, and advocacy for a special or private interest. Norm-based motives are a desire to serve the public interest, loyalty to duty and to the government as a whole, and social equity. Affective motives are commitment to a program from a genuine conviction about its social importance, and patriotism of benevolence. A recent study reveals that all three types of motives are important to public sector employees (Brewer *et al.*, 2000).

Perry and Wise (1990) formulated three propositions:

- (1) The greater an individual’s public sector motivation, the more likely it is that the individual will seek membership in a public organization.
- (2) In public organizations, public sector motivation is positively related to performance.
- (3) Public organizations that attract members with high levels of public sector motivation are likely to be less dependent on utilitarian incentives to manage individual performance effectively.

Perry (1996) identified a multi-dimensional scale to measure public service motivation, which has four components: attraction to policy-making, commitment to public interest, compassion, and self-sacrifice.

Public employees place a higher value on helping others and performing work that is worthwhile to society. Crewson (1997) found that public-sector employees rate a feeling of accomplishment and performing work helpful to society and to others as more important job characteristics than do private-sector employees. Naff and Crum (1999) found a significant relationship between public service motivation and federal employees’ job satisfaction, performance, intention to remain in the government, and support for the government’s reinvention efforts. Houston (2000) showed that public service motivation does exist, and that public employees are more likely to place a higher value on the intrinsic reward of work that is important and provides a feeling of accomplishment. Public service motivation is a modestly important predictor of

organizational performance in testing a comprehensive model (Brewer and Selden, 2000). Houston (2006) found that, using data from the 2002 General Social Survey, government employees are more likely to volunteer for charity and to donate blood than for-profit employees are, and that public service motivation is more prominent in public service than in private organizations.

Public service motivation pertains to government employees. We can assume that the public employees with the highest level of public service motivation are attracted to the ideal of public service, and they are committed to the public good and characterized by an ethic built on benevolence, a life in service to others, and a desire to affect the community. They want to achieve policy goals and enhance the public good, helping others in the government and citizens, voluntarily take extra responsibilities, and engage in pro-social behavior. Thus, it is possible to assume that public service motivation will be positively related with OCB.

H1. The higher the level of public service motivation perceived by public employees, the higher the level of OCB.

Job satisfaction

Job satisfaction is a pleasurable or positive emotional state resulting from the appraisal of one's job or job experiences (Locke, 1976). There is substantial support for the relationship between job satisfaction and OCB. For example, Bateman and Organ (1983) found a significant relationship between general measures of job satisfaction and supervisory ratings of citizenship behavior. Puffer (1987) found a significant relationship between pro-social behavior and satisfaction with material reward. Organ (1988); Organ and Konovsky (1989) has argued for and provided empirical evidence supporting a relationship between satisfaction and OCB, as did Williams and Anderson (1991). Moorman (1993) found support for the relative importance of cognitive job satisfaction over affective job satisfaction in predicting OCB. Organ and Lingl (1995) found that overall job satisfaction yielded a significant increment in the OCB dimension of altruism, but not in the compliance dimension of OCB. In both American and Middle Eastern samples, Tang and Ibrahim (1998) found that intrinsic job satisfaction was positively related to altruism. In a sample of Australian human-service professionals, Murphy *et al.* (2002) found that job satisfaction is positively correlated with OCB to a degree that indicates a medium to strong relationship.

Public employees who are satisfied with their jobs may want to achieve good job performance, have good relationships with others, and continue to work at the office. That is, they want their organization be a good place to work, at present and in the future. They may be not only more concerned about the results of their task implementation and worried about whether policy goals are achieved, but also they are more concerned about the task accomplishment of co-workers and organizational success. Thus, they may voluntarily help others with work-related problems, encourage others in the organization to achieve job performance, and take on extra roles, especially in the collectivistic culture. Thus, it is possible to assume that job satisfaction will be positively related with OCB.

H2. The higher the level of job satisfaction perceived by public employees, the higher the level of OCB.

Organizational commitment

Organizational commitment means “the relative strength of an individual’s identification with and involvement in an organization” (Mowday *et al.*, 1979, p. 226). Representing something beyond mere passive loyalty to an organization, commitment involves an active relationship with the organization, such that individuals are willing to give something of themselves in order to contribute to the organization’s well-being. Hence, commitment could be inferred not only from the expressions of an individual’s beliefs and opinions but also from his or her actions (Mowday *et al.*, 1979).

Angle and Perry (1981) identified two subscales: value commitment, which reflected a commitment to support organizational goals, and commitment to stay, which reflected a desire to retain organizational membership. Meyer and Allen (1984) used the terms affective commitment and continuance commitment, to measure the attitudinal and behavioral views of commitment, respectively. Meyer and Allen (1991) identified the three components of organizational commitment as affective, continuance, and normative commitments. Affective commitment refers to the employee’s emotional attachment to, identification with, and involvement in the organization. Continuance commitment refers to an awareness of the costs associated with leaving the organization. Normative commitment reflects a feeling of obligation to continue employment. O’Reilly and Chatman (1986) also developed a scale to measure three definitions of commitment, including compliance, identification, and internalization commitment. Balfour and Wechsler (1996) distinguished the three dimensions of organizational commitment as affiliation, identification, and exchange commitment.

Organizational commitment is a likely determinant of OCB. O’Reilly and Chatman (1986) found that identification was a significant predictor of self-reports of generalized compliance behaviors, and that identification and internalization were significant predictors of self-reports of extra-role compliance behaviors. The meta-analysis conducted by Organ and Ryan (1995) revealed that affective organizational commitment was significantly related to both the altruism and compliance dimensions of OCB. Bolon (1997) showed that affective commitment is the most important commitment component in terms of explaining unique variance in OCB. According to Schappe (1998), hierarchical regression analyses indicated that when job satisfaction, organizational commitment, and fairness perceptions were considered concurrently, only organizational commitment accounted for a unique amount of variance in OCB. Meyer *et al.* (2000) found that among three dimensions of commitment, affective commitment has the strongest positive correlation with OCB, followed by normative commitment, but continuance commitment is unrelated to OCB. However, Williams and Anderson (1991) found that organizational commitment was not related to either form of OCB, and Tansky (1993) found no significant positive relationships between organizational commitment and five OCB dimensions.

Public employees’ emotional and psychological attachment to government may contribute to the achievement of policy objectives. Public employees with strong affective commitments are more likely to make a high effort on behalf of government and help others with organizationally relevant task. They will voluntarily search for ways to contribute to increase the quality of job performance and to innovate task-performing processes, with no reward. Thus, it is possible to assume that affective commitment will be positively related with OCB.

H3. The higher the level of affective commitment perceived by public employees, the higher the level of OCB.

Public employees having high satisfaction with their jobs, high commitment to the organization and high motivation to serve the public may have strong intentions to help others in and work for the organization willingly and devotedly. In the present study, I hypothesized that public service motivation, job satisfaction, and organizational commitment each explain unique variance in OCB. All three variables together are analyzed to determine their relative effects on OCB.

Method

Sample

The present study was part of a larger research project (Park *et al.*, 2001). To increase external validity, the participants – 2,000 permanent full-time public employees in nine central government agencies, five provincial government agencies, and 26 lower-level local government agencies in the Republic of Korea – were given surveys to complete during regular working hours in 2001; 1,739 surveys were returned, yielding a response rate of 87.0 percent. To create a data file for statistical analysis, the 155 cases with missing data for any of the indicators were deleted, and finally a total of 1,584 cases were retained.

Among the respondents, 28.9 percent were from the central government, 40.7 percent from the upper-level local governments (provinces and metropolitan cities), 29.8 percent from the lower-level local governments (cities, counties and districts), and 0.6 percent did not answer. Of the respondents, men were 70.3 percent and women were 29.7 percent. Turning to educational background, 68.1 percent had at least a bachelor's degree; 15.3 percent had a junior college diploma. Most (43.7 percent) were in their 40s in age; the next largest group (43.5 percent), were in their 30s. Over one-third (34.3 percent) of the respondents had worked for ten years or fewer in the civil service and 23.5 percent had worked 20 years or more.

Measures

To increase the accuracy of the response, each survey was distributed with a cover sheet guaranteeing anonymity. All of the scales described below were responded to on a five-point Likert type scale (1 = strong disagreement, 5 = strong agreement).

Public service motivation was measured with five items that asked respondents to express the extent of their disagreement or agreement with a series of statements regarding the dimension of public service motivation. This scale was the same as used in the previous studies (Brewer and Selden, 2000; Naff and Crum, 1999): two self-sacrifice questions, plus one each for public interest, compassion, and social justice.

Job satisfaction was measured with Mason's (1995) ten-item scale that included the following facets: job interest, feedback from agents, comparable worth and pay, co-workers, external equity and pay, supervision, performance evaluation, fair treatment, overall job satisfaction, and company satisfaction.

Organizational commitment was regarded as affective commitment, as opposed to normative or continuance commitment, since the previous studies showed affective commitment was significantly related to OCB (Bolon, 1997; Organ and Ryan, 1995; Schappe, 1998). Affective commitment was evaluated by three items with the highest

factor loading of the Organization Commitment Questionnaire (Meyer *et al.*, 1993). Three statements were about the participant's feelings toward the organization.

OCB was measured with the original index of Smith *et al.* (1983), who identified two separate dimensions of OCB: altruism, behavior directly and intentionally aimed at helping specific people, and generalized compliance (later renamed "conscientiousness" by Organ (1988), a more impersonal type of conscientious behavior that does not provide immediate aid to a particular individual but is indirectly helpful to other people in the organization. The original index consists of 16 items in which seven items represent altruism and nine items represent generalized compliance. However, I excluded most items in the category of generalized compliance, since some are not applicable in the context of Korean government and some overlap. For example, "punctuality," "attendance at work," and "gives advance notice if unable to come to work" are regulated by the National Civil Service Act, the Presidential Decree, and related ordinances. Thus, there is no need to survey these items. In this study OCB was measured with seven items of altruism and two items of generalized compliance.

To assure equivalence of the measures in the Korean and the English versions, all the scales used in this study were translated into Korean and then translated back into English. The researchers and public officials also examined the questionnaires to ensure that the items were interpretable in Korean.

Analyses

The statistical analysis applied structural equation modeling (SEM) using *Amos 5.0* (Arbuckle, 2003) with the maximum likelihood estimation method. SEM is a family of statistical techniques that incorporate and integrate path analysis and factor analysis. Structural equation modeling process centers around two steps: validating the measurement model and fitting the structural model. The former is accomplished primarily through confirmatory factor analysis, while the latter is accomplished primarily through path analysis with latent variables. SEM allows for all the relationships in the model to be tested simultaneously, accounts for random measurement error, and also more accurately reflects the relationships of interest.

At first, the cross-validation process was conducted. After deleting cases with missing data, with SPSS' "random sample of cases" feature the sample was split into two random parts. I used the first half to estimate the models and the second half to cross-validate the results. I conducted an exploratory factor analysis (EFA) on each variable using the first sub-sample, and established a measurement model (i.e. items and factors). The two-factor structure of OCB was examined, and the unidimensionality of three independent variables was analyzed. Then I applied confirmatory factor analysis (CFA) using the second sub-sample, and identified the goodness of fit between the model and the data. If there was a good fit, I applied the CFA using the whole sample.

For model fit assessment, both inferential χ^2 test and a group of descriptive goodness-of-fit indices were consulted. Lower values of χ^2 indicate a better fit and should be nonsignificant, but for large sample sizes, this statistic may lead to rejection of a model with good fit (Epitropaki and Martin, 2004). For this reason, I used several widely used descriptive fit indices for assessing model fit, such as comparative fit index (CFI), goodness-of-fit index (GFI), the root mean square error of approximation (RMSEA), and Tucker-Lewis index (TLI). The model achieves an acceptable fit to the

data, when CFI, GFI, and TLI equal or exceed 0.90, and RMSEA values below 0.08 indicate good fit (Byrne, 2001; Vandenberg and Lance, 2000).

An examination of measurement invariance enables to determine whether the items and the underlying constructs mean the same thing to the different groups of public employees (Cheung and Rensvold, 2002; Vandenberg and Lance, 2000). To test the generalizability of the model across three different government levels, I used multi-group confirmatory factor analysis (MGCFA) to conduct a sequence of increasingly more restrictive tests of invariance across the three groups. Four nested models were tested as part of each multi-group analysis. Model 1 hypothesized the same factor structure across groups. In Model 2, factor loadings were additionally constrained to be equal. Model 3 maintained equality constraints on all factor co-variances as well as on the factor loading parameters to be group invariant. In Model 4, the residual variances were invariant across groups.

Tests of construct validity are generally intended to determine if measures across subjects are similar across methods of measuring those variables. If constructs are valid, one can expect relatively high correlations between measures of the same construct using different methods and low correlations between measures of constructs that are expected to differ. Convergent validity is assessed from the measurement model by determining whether each indicator's estimated pattern coefficient on its specified underlying construct was statistically significant. Discriminant validity is assessed by determining whether the confidence interval around the correlation estimate between two factors included 1.00 (Anderson and Gerbing, 1988).

To test the hypotheses, I adopted a two-stage approach as suggested by Anderson and Gerbing (1988). At first, I conducted a CFA on all factors and their items in the confirmatory measurement model. After confirming the factor structure using the CFA, I then conducted a path analysis. In this confirmatory structural model, six direct paths between the three independent variables and the two dimensions of OCB, altruism and generalized compliance, were evaluated.

Since all the items were measured at the same time and from the same person, the effects of common method variance (Podsakoff *et al.*, 2003) need to be examined. Common method variance refers to variance that is attributable to the measurement method rather than to the construct of interest. It can have a substantial impact on the observed relationships between predictor and criterion variables in organizational research. Some methods effects result from the fact that the respondent providing the measure of the predictor and criterion variable is the same person. The potential causes of this common rater effect are identified as consistency motif, implicit theories, social desirability, leniency biases, acquiescence biases, mood state, and transit mood state (Podsakoff *et al.*, 2003). To assess the potential impact of this form of bias on the hypothesized relationships, a second model, which included a common method factor, was assessed. This common method model differs from the structural model in that a "method" latent variable is added. All the items that originate from the same source are then double-loaded onto its substantive latent variable and the method variable as well. If the paths that were found to be significant remained significant in this final model, we could offer support that the relationships found were robust to common method effects (Moorman and Blakely, 1995; Williams *et al.*, 2003).

Results*Validation*

A total of 1,584 cases were split into the two random subsets. At first, with the first sub-sample ($n = 764$), I performed EFA using principal axis factoring with oblique rotation to see whether the items represent a single underlying construct. The nine items measuring OCB provided the two factors, altruism and generalized compliance, which are indicated by Smith *et al.* (1983). The factor loadings were from 0.479 to 0.690 on the seven items of altruism, and from 0.792 to 0.824 on the two items of generalized compliance. Only a single component with an Eigen value greater than 1.0 was extracted in the three items representing affective commitment and in the five items indicating public service motivation. But the first item of public service motivation was deleted because the factor loading was low. The ten items of job satisfaction provided more than one factor. Thus, four items with the initial communalities less than 0.30 and one item with low factor loading were discarded. Finally, the selected items representing job satisfaction are about job interest, feedback from agents, fair treatment, overall job satisfaction, and company satisfaction. I used the five factors identified in the first sub-sample as a basis for conducting a CFA in the second sub-sample. The resulting CFA for the second sub-sample ($n = 820$) yielded an acceptable factor structure, χ^2 ($df = 179$) = 645.9, $p < 0.001$; $\chi^2/df = 3.608$; CFI = 0.920; GFI = 0.930; TLI = 0.906; RMSEA = 0.056). Thus, I can apply the CFA to the whole sample.

Through the validation procedures, the 21 items in the three independent variables and the two dimensions of OCB were selected. The observed means, standard deviations, alpha reliabilities, and correlations among the summed values of the variables in this study were shown in Table I. Reliability is essentially an evaluation of measurement accuracy. Large Cronbach alphas are usually signs that the measures are reliable. The Cronbach alpha internal consistency reliability estimates were all above Nunnally's (1978) recommended level of 0.70. Thus, the measures were reliable.

To test the measurement invariance of the five correlated factor model across three different government levels, I conducted a series of multi-group analyses by imposing equality constraints on the common five-factor model. After deleting nine cases that had missing data for government level, I divided a total of 1,575 complete cases into the three employee groups: 458 cases for the central government, 645 cases for the upper-level local government, and 472 cases for the lower-level local government. The four nested models were tested, and the results are presented in Table II. The obtained fit indices showed that total invariance (number of factors, factor loading pattern,

Scale	M	S.D.	1	2	3	4	5
1. Job satisfaction	3.12	0.667	(0.784)				
2. Affective commitment	3.21	0.756	0.623*	(0.783)			
3. Public service motivation	3.43	0.627	0.380*	0.404*	(0.749)		
4. Altruism	3.48	0.495	0.373*	0.399*	0.525*	(0.795)	
5. Generalized compliance	3.49	0.709	0.203*	0.186*	0.248*	0.304*	(0.793)

Notes: Values in parentheses indicate the reliability estimate for the scale. Sample size = 1,584.

* $p < 0.01$

Table I.
Descriptive statistics,
reliability estimates, and
correlations

factor covariance, and residual variances) was supported for the groups of three government levels. Thus, the five correlated factor model is generalizable across the public employees of all government levels.

Hypothesis testing

The five correlated factor model was tested by using a CFA with the whole sample. The results suggested that all items loaded significantly onto their a priori dimensions, and the five correlated factor model had a good fit to the data, $\chi^2 (df = 179) = 1002.7$, $p < 0.001$; $\chi^2/df = 5.602$; CFI = 0.925; GFI = 0.941; TLI = 0.913; RMSEA = 0.054). As shown in Table III, the results indicated the presence of two distinguishable forms of OCB, altruism and generalized compliance, in the Korean context.

They also provided support for convergent validity as all factor loadings were statistically significant with critical t values ranging from 14.35 to 29.33 ($p < 0.001$) and the standardized factor loadings values ranging from 0.49 to 0.84. The correlation estimates between the two factors ranged from 0.237 to 0.759 and the confidence intervals (± 2 standard errors) around the correlation estimate between the two factors didn't include 1.00 supported for the discriminant validity of this five-factor model (Anderson and Gerbing, 1988). This result justified the use of the two-stage approach.

In order to examine any relationships between the individual dimensions of job satisfaction, affective commitment, and public service motivation, and the dimensions of OCB, altruism and generalized compliance, I assessed the parameters of the structural paths in the full structural model. The results are shown in Figure 1 and Table IV. Overall, this model adequately fit the data, $\chi^2 (df = 180) = 1043.3$, $p < 0.001$; $\chi^2/df = 5.796$; CFI = 0.922; GFI = 0.939; TLI = 0.909; RMSEA = 0.055). In this model, job satisfaction, affective commitment, and public service motivation account for 50.6 percent of the variance of altruism, and for 13.1 percent of the variance of generalized compliance.

The three paths were found to be significant at the 0.001 level. The paths from public service motivation to altruism and to generalized compliance were significant, and the path from affective commitment to altruism was also significant. But no significant paths were found between job satisfaction and any of the two OCB dimensions.

H1 predicted that the public service motivation would be positively related to altruism ($\beta = 0.573$) and generalized compliance ($\beta = 0.286$), and this hypothesis was confirmed. *H2* predicted that the job satisfaction would be positively related to OCB, but this hypothesis was not confirmed. *H3* predicted that the affective commitment would be positively related to OCB, and this hypothesis received mixed support.

Model	χ^2	df	χ^2/df	CFI	GFI	TLI	RMSEA
Model 1	1421.22	537	2.647	0.920	0.920	0.907	0.032
Model 2	1452.95	569	2.554	0.920	0.918	0.912	0.031
Model 3	1479.73	599	2.470	0.921	0.917	0.917	0.031
Model 4	1559.21	641	2.432	0.917	0.913	0.919	0.030

Notes: Model 1 = equal factor structure between groups; Model 2 = Model 1+ equal factor loadings; Model 3 = Model 2+ equal factor covariance; Model 4 = Model 3+ equal residual variances

Table II.
Fit indices for tests of
invariance across
government levels

Table III.
Factor structure and
loadings

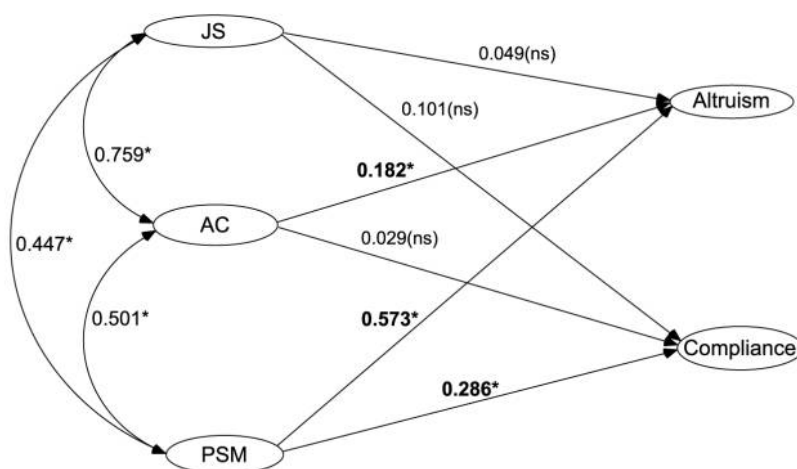
Item	Standardized loading
<i>Job satisfaction:</i>	
js1: My job provides a chance to do challenging and interesting work	0.600
js2: My superior gives me the information I need to do a good job	0.495
js8: My organization takes employees' interests/concerns into account in making important decisions	0.540
js9: I feel good about my job – the kind of work I do	0.816
js10: Overall, my organization is a good place to work	0.787
<i>Affective commitment:</i>	
ac1: I feel a strong sense of belonging to my organization	0.791
ac2: My organization has a great deal of personal meaning for me	0.788
ac3: I feel like part of the family in my organization	0.650
<i>Public service motivation:</i>	
psm2: I am not afraid to go to bat for the rights of others even if it means I will be ridiculed	0.677
psm3: Making a difference in society means more to me than personal achievements	0.661
psm4: I am prepared to make enormous sacrifices for the good of society	0.737
psm5: I am often reminded by daily events about how dependent we are on one another	0.552
<i>Altruism:</i>	
ocb1: I assist my supervisor with his or her work	0.488
ocb2: I make innovative suggestions to improve my department	0.581
ocb3: I volunteer for things that are not required	0.607
ocb4: I orient new people even though it is not required	0.644
ocb5: I help others who have been absent	0.496
ocb6: I attend functions that are not required but that help organization image	0.708
ocb7: I help others who have heavy workloads	0.668
<i>Generalized compliance:</i>	
ocb8: I do not spend time in idle conversation	0.779
ocb9: I do not take extra breaks	0.843

Note: All factor loadings are significant at $p < 0.001$

Affective commitment was positively related to altruism ($\beta = 0.182$), but not to generalized compliance. Public service motivation emerges as a more significant predictor of OCB in the public sector of Korea.

Assessing common method effects

A second model, which included a common method factor, was evaluated. This model contained all the indicators and factors of the previous structural model, and the indicators for the factors were double-loaded onto a method factor. Any shared variance based on the source of the rating would be controlled when assessing the significance of the structural paths (Moorman and Blakely, 1995).



Note: JS = job satisfaction, AC = affective commitment, PSM = public service motivation. Correlation estimates and standardized path estimates are shown. * $p < 0.001$. Non-significant path loadings are indicated with (ns)

Figure 1.
Full structural model

Path	Full structural model		Controlling for method factor	
	Standardized coefficients	Critical values	Standardized coefficients	Critical values
Job satisfaction → Altruism	0.049	1.019	−0.018	−0.544
Job satisfaction → Compliance	0.101	1.787	0.049	1.276
Affective commitment → Altruism	0.182*	3.509	0.193*	4.452
Affective commitment → Compliance	0.029	0.483	0.056	1.279
Public service motivation → Altruism	0.573*	12.417	0.545*	10.585
Public service motivation → Compliance	0.286*	7.090	0.256*	6.719

Note: * $p < 0.001$

Table IV.
Parameter estimates for
the paths in two models

This model adequately fit the data, $\chi^2(df = 160) = 660.7$, $p < 0.001$; $\chi^2/df = 4.130$; CFI = 0.955; GFI = 0.960; TLI = 0.941; RMSEA = 0.044). When comparing the model with and without the common method factor, the differences between the two models are significant ($\Delta\chi^2_{(20)} = 382.6$, $p < 0.001$; $\Delta CFI = 0.033$). The results indicated that common method variance had some significant effect on the regression weights of the paths from the independent variables to the OCB dimensions, but all the paths found to be significant in the full structural model maintained their significance. The standardized regression weights for the paths measured are reported in Table IV.

After controlling the effects of common method variance, I also found the evidence of relationships between public service motivation and the OCB dimensions of altruism and generalized compliance, and between affective commitment and altruism.

Therefore, the results of statistical analyses support public service motivation and affective commitment as predictors of OCB in Korean public employees but do not support the causal relationship between job satisfaction and OCB.

Conclusion

The purpose in the present study is to examine whether the distinct classes of OCB, such as altruism and generalized compliance, are shown in the Korean context and whether public service motivation as well as job satisfaction and organizational commitment is a predictor of OCB in the Korean public employees. The results of statistical analyses indicated the presence of two distinguishable dimensions of OCB in the Korean context, and showed evidence of relationships between public service motivation and OCB and between organizational commitment and OCB. However, the causal relationship between job satisfaction and OCB was not confirmed.

The results of this study show that the public employees in Korea who have high public service motivation are more likely to be associated with the performance of OCB than individuals with low public service motivation, and that those who are affectively committed to the government organization are more likely to be associated with the performance of OCB than individuals lacking in such commitment.

This study provides support for the previous studies that had clarified the positive relationship between organizational commitment and OCB, such as that of Bolon (1997), O'Reilly and Chatman (1986), Organ and Ryan (1995), and Schappe (1998). But it doesn't confirm the previous studies that had shown the significant relationship between job satisfaction and OCB.

The direct relationship between job satisfaction and OCB was not supported in this study, but the intercorrelation between job satisfaction and affective commitment was quite high. So it is reasonable to assume that job satisfaction will positively affect organizational commitment (Angle and Perry, 1981), and thus job satisfaction will indirectly affect OCB through the effect of organizational commitment in the Korean context. Otherwise, the work environment of the public sector may affect the relationships between the variables. Future research should continue to explicate the relationship of job satisfaction to OCB.

This study suggests that having public employees with a high level of public service motivation is important to enhancing OCB in government organizations. It gives several implications for public managers. It is important to select and retain public employees with high public service motivation. In the selection process, government organizations need to examine applicants with the perspective of public service motivation. Effective employee orientation and education programs are also a critical component for retaining public employees with high public service motivation because the programs can introduce the mission, goals, objectives, and norms of public organizations and explain the ways to serve the public interest through making public policies and delivering public services. Public service motivation may be enhanced by appropriate selection process and socialization to agency values.

Managers in the public sector need to recognize that public sector incentive structures must provide an opportunity for employees to satisfy their public service motives (Houston, 2006). Public employees are more likely to place a higher value on the intrinsic reward of work that is important and provides a feeling of

accomplishment, and they are less likely to place a high value on such extrinsic reward motivators as high income and short work hours. The managers need to give public employees opportunities to experience a sense of accomplishment and achievement or to feel that they are doing something worthwhile.

Public managers also need to better manage and promote the relationship between organizational commitment and OCB. Managers need to recognize that the feelings employees have for their organizations may manifest themselves in the form of pro-social job behaviors. In the public sector affective commitment can be influenced through a strategic use of intrinsic incentives.

The present study has also several limitations. It relied on cross-sectional, self-reported data. Therefore, our ability to make causal statements about the hypothesized relationships is constrained. Longitudinal studies are needed to offset the disadvantages of cross-sectional design. The exclusive use of self-reported data may create the potential for common-method bias, even when applying several procedures in order to reduce method biases. Using multiple measures for the variables would alleviate some of these concerns.

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